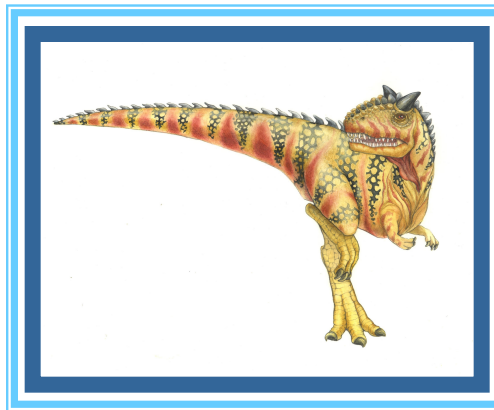


Chapter 1: Introduction





Chapter 1: Introduction

- What Operating Systems Do
- Computer-System Organization
- Computer-System Architecture
- Operating-System Structure
- Operating-System Operations
- Process Management
- Memory Management
- Storage Management
- Protection and Security
- Kernel Data Structures
- Computing Environments
- Open-Source Operating Systems





Objectives

- To describe the basic organization of computer systems
- To provide a grand tour of the major components of operating systems
- To give an overview of the many types of computing environments
- To explore several open-source operating systems





What is an Operating System?

- **A program that acts as an intermediary between a user of a computer and the computer hardware.**
- Operating system goals:
 - Execute user programs and make solving user problems easier.
 - Make the computer system convenient to use.
 - Use the computer hardware in an efficient manner.





Computer System Structure

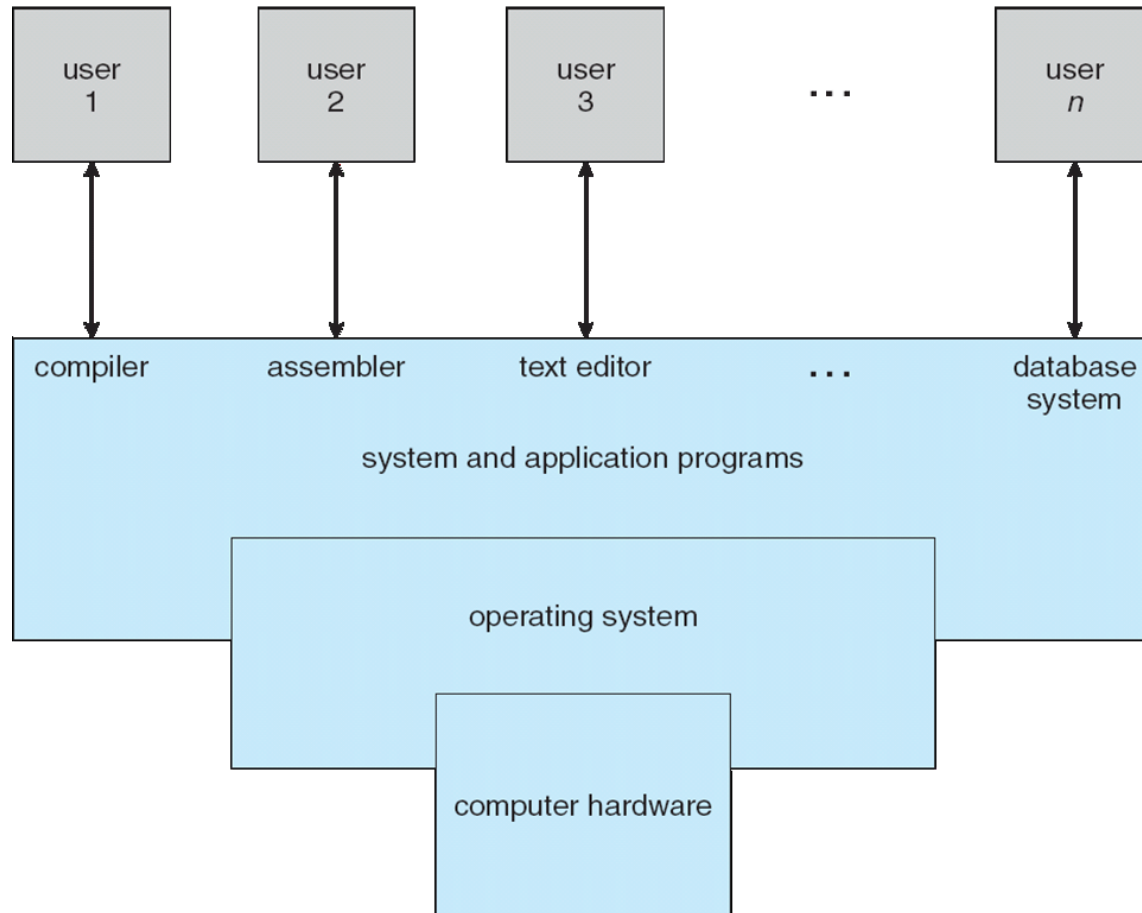
■ Computer system can be divided into four components:

- **Hardware** – provides basic computing resources
 - ▶ CPU, memory, I/O devices
- **Operating system** (Software)
 - ▶ Controls and coordinates use of hardware among various applications and users
- **Application programs** (Software) – define the ways in which the system resources are used to solve the computing problems of the users
 - ▶ Word processors, compilers, web browsers, database systems, video games, business programs such as banking software
- **Users**
 - ▶ People, machines, other computers





Four Components of a Computer System





What Operating Systems Do

To understand more fully the operating system's role, we explore operating systems from two viewpoints: that of the user and that of the system.

- **User's View:**

- The user's view of the computer varies according to the interface being used.
- In systems that designed for one user: users want convenience, **ease of use** and **good performance**
 - Don't care about **resource utilization**
- But shared computer such as **mainframe** or **minicomputer** must keep all users happy
- Users of dedicate systems such as **workstations** have dedicated resources but frequently use shared resources from **servers**
- Handheld computers are resource poor, optimized for usability and performance per unit of battery life.
- Some computers have little or no user interface, such as embedded computers in devices and automobiles, their operating systems are designed primarily to run without user intervention.





Operating System Definition

- **System's View:**

- From the computer's point of view, the operating system is the program most intimately involved with the hardware. In this context, we can view an operating system as:
 - A **resource allocator**
 - Manages all resources.
 - Decides between conflicting requests for efficient and fair resource use.
 - A **control program**
 - Controls execution of programs to prevent errors and improper use of the computer.





Operating System Definition (Cont.)

- No universally accepted definition
- “Everything a vendor ships when you order an operating system” is a good approximation
 - But varies wildly
- **“The one program running at all times on the computer” is the kernel.**
- Everything else is either
 - a system program (ships with the operating system) , or
 - an application program.





Computer Startup

- **bootstrap program** is loaded at power-up or reboot
 - Typically stored in ROM or EPROM, generally known as **firmware**
 - Initializes all aspects of system from CPU registers to device controllers to memory contents.
 - Loads operating system kernel and starts execution of the system

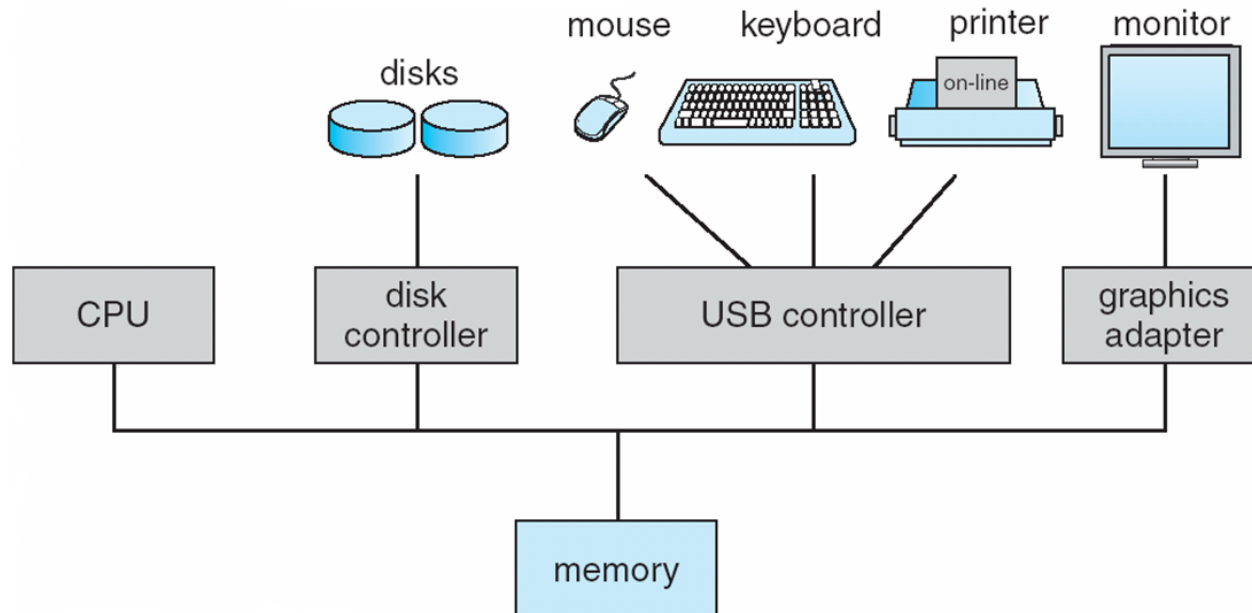




Computer System Organization

■ Computer-system operation

- One or more CPUs, device controllers connect through common bus providing access to shared memory
- Concurrent execution of CPUs and devices competing for memory cycles
- To ensure orderly access to the shared memory, a memory controller is provided whose function is to synchronize access to the memory.





Computer-System Operation

- I/O devices and the CPU can execute concurrently
- Each device controller is in charge of a particular device type
- Each device controller has a local buffer
- CPU moves data from/to main memory to/from local buffers
- I/O is from the device to local buffer of controller
- Device controller informs CPU that it has finished its operation by causing an **interrupt**





Common Functions of Interrupts

- Interrupt transfers control to the interrupt service routine generally, through the **interrupt vector**, which contains the addresses of all the service routines.
- **Interrupt Service Routine:** Segments of code that determine action to be taken for each type of interrupt.
- Interrupt architecture must save the address of the interrupted instruction
- A **trap** or **exception** is a software-generated interrupt caused either by an error or a user request
- An operating system is **interrupt driven**.





Interrupt Handling

- The operating system preserves the state of the CPU by storing registers and the program counter (address of interrupted instruction) when the interrupt occurs.

- Determines which type of interrupt has occurred:

- **polling**
- **vectored** interrupt system

Interrupt Number	Address
0	0003h
1	000Bh
2	0013h
3	001Bh
4	0023h
5	002Bh
6	0033h
7	003Bh
8	0043h
9	004Bh
10	0053h
11	005Bh
12	0063h
13	006Bh
14	0073h
15	007Bh

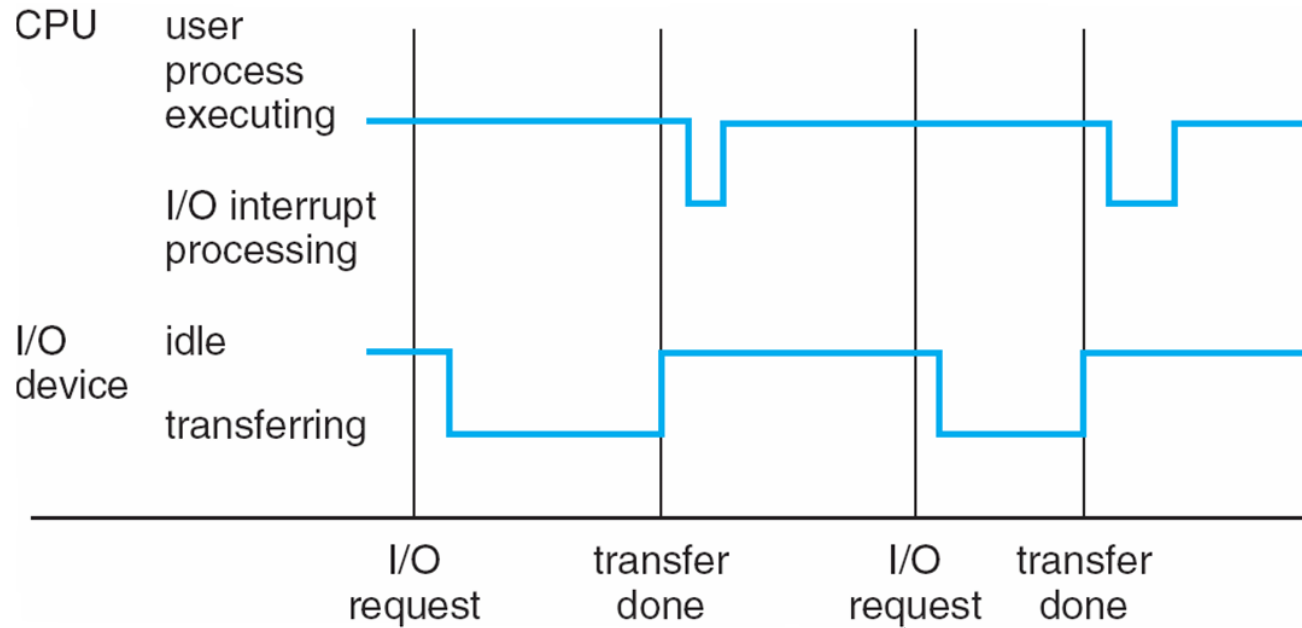
Interrupt Number	Address
16	0083h
17	008Bh
18	0093h
19	009Bh
20	00A3h
21	00ABh
22	00B3h
23	00BBh
24	00C3h
25	00CBh
26	00D3h
27	00DBh
28	00E3h
29	00EBh
30	00F3h
31	00FBh

- Incoming interrupts are disabled while another interrupt is being processed to prevent a *lost interrupt*.





Interrupt Timeline





I/O Structure

- After I/O starts, control returns to user program only upon I/O completion
 - Wait instruction idles the CPU until the next interrupt
 - Wait loop (contention for memory access)
 - At most one I/O request is outstanding at a time, no simultaneous I/O processing

- After I/O starts, control returns to user program without waiting for I/O completion
 - **System call** – request to the OS to allow user to wait for I/O completion
 - **Device-status table** contains entry for each I/O device indicating its type, address, and state
 - OS indexes into I/O device table to determine device status and to modify table entry to include interrupt





Storage Definitions and Notation Review

The basic unit of computer storage is the **bit**. A bit can contain one of two values, 0 and 1. All other storage in a computer is based on collections of bits. Given enough bits, it is amazing how many things a computer can represent: numbers, letters, images, movies, sounds, documents, and programs, to name a few. A **byte** is 8 bits, and on most computers it is the smallest convenient chunk of storage. For example, most computers don't have an instruction to move a bit but do have one to move a byte. A less common term is **word**, which is a given computer architecture's native unit of data. A word is made up of one or more bytes. For example, a computer that has 64-bit registers and 64-bit memory addressing typically has 64-bit (8-byte) words. A computer executes many operations in its native word size rather than a byte at a time.

Computer storage, along with most computer throughput, is generally measured and manipulated in bytes and collections of bytes.

A **kilobyte**, or **KB**, is 1,024 bytes

a **megabyte**, or **MB**, is $1,024^2$ bytes

a **gigabyte**, or **GB**, is $1,024^3$ bytes

a **terabyte**, or **TB**, is $1,024^4$ bytes

a **petabyte**, or **PB**, is $1,024^5$ bytes

Computer manufacturers often round off these numbers and say that a megabyte is 1 million bytes and a gigabyte is 1 billion bytes. Networking measurements are an exception to this general rule; they are given in bits (because networks move data a bit at a time).





Storage Structure

- Main memory – only large storage media that the CPU can access directly
 - **Random access** memory (RAM).
 - Typically **volatile** that loses its contents when power is turned off or otherwise lost.
- Secondary storage – extension of main memory that provides large **nonvolatile** (Permanent) storage capacity
- Hard disks – rigid metal or glass platters covered with magnetic recording material
 - Disk surface is logically divided into **tracks**, which are subdivided into **sectors**
 - The **disk controller** determines the logical interaction between the device and the computer
- **Solid-state disks (SSD)**– faster than hard disks, nonvolatile
 - Various technologies
 - Becoming more popular





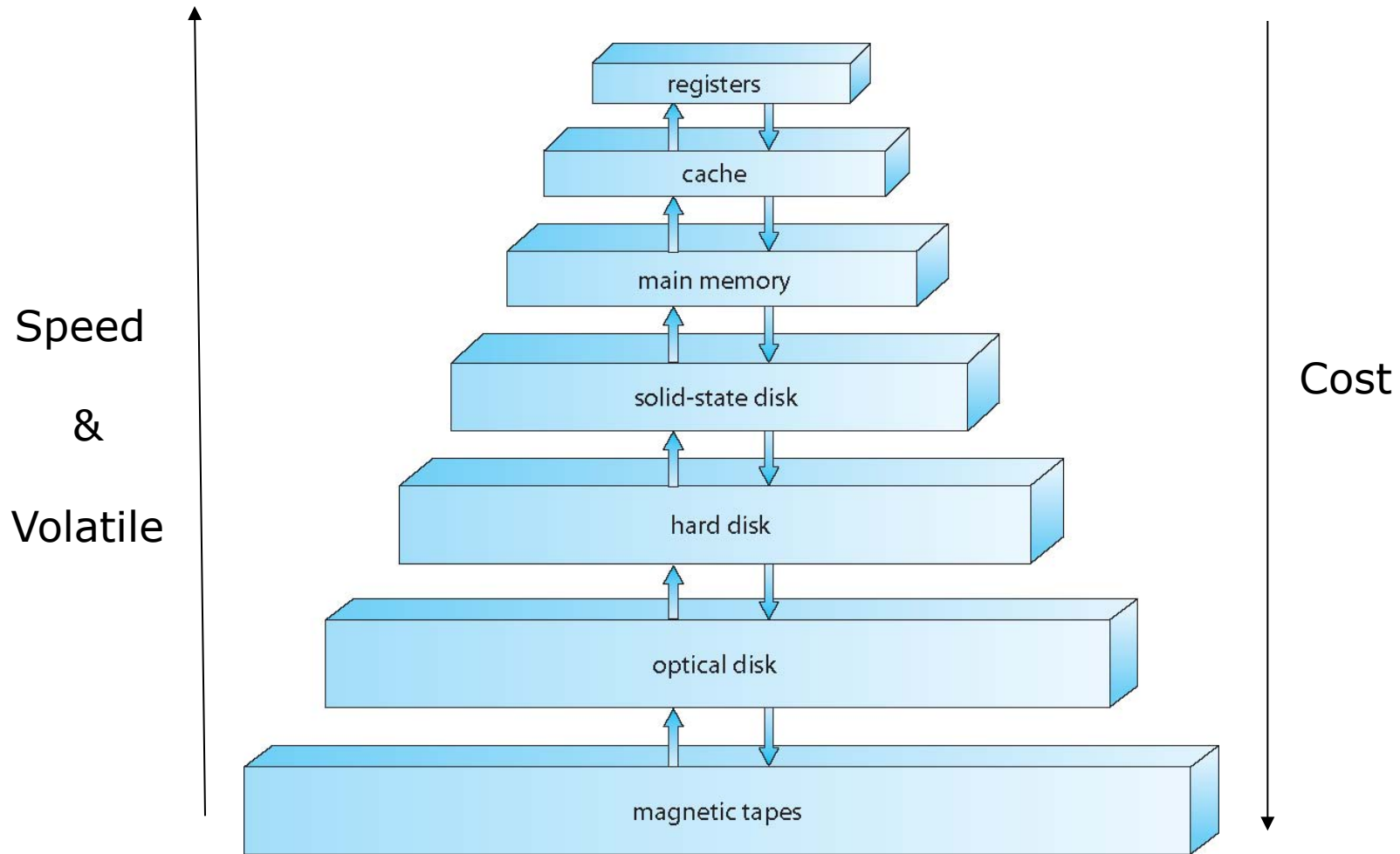
Storage Hierarchy

- Storage systems organized in hierarchy
 - Speed
 - Cost
 - Volatility
- **Caching** – copying information into faster storage system; main memory can be viewed as a cache for secondary storage
- There's a **Device Driver** for each device controller.
- It used to provides uniform interface between controller and kernel





Storage-Device Hierarchy





Caching

- Important principle, performed at many levels in a computer (in hardware, operating system, software)
- Information in use copied from slower to faster storage temporarily
- Faster storage (cache) checked first to determine if information is there
 - If it is, information used directly from the cache (fast)
 - If not, data copied to cache and used there
- Cache smaller than storage being cached
 - Cache management important design problem
 - Cache size and replacement policy

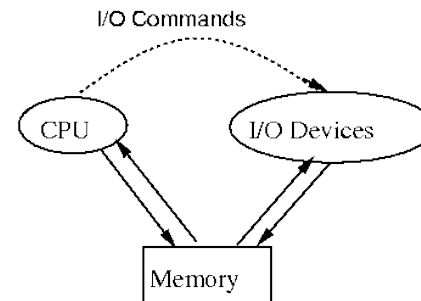




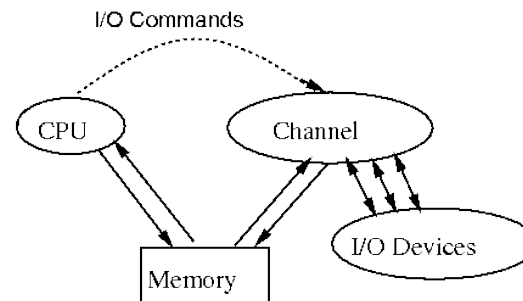
Direct Memory Access Structure

- Used for high-speed I/O devices able to transmit information at close to memory speeds.
- Device controller transfers blocks of data from buffer storage directly to main memory without CPU intervention
- Only one interrupt is generated per block to tell the device driver that the operation has completed, rather than the one interrupt per byte generated for low speed devices.

- Direct Memory Access (DMA)

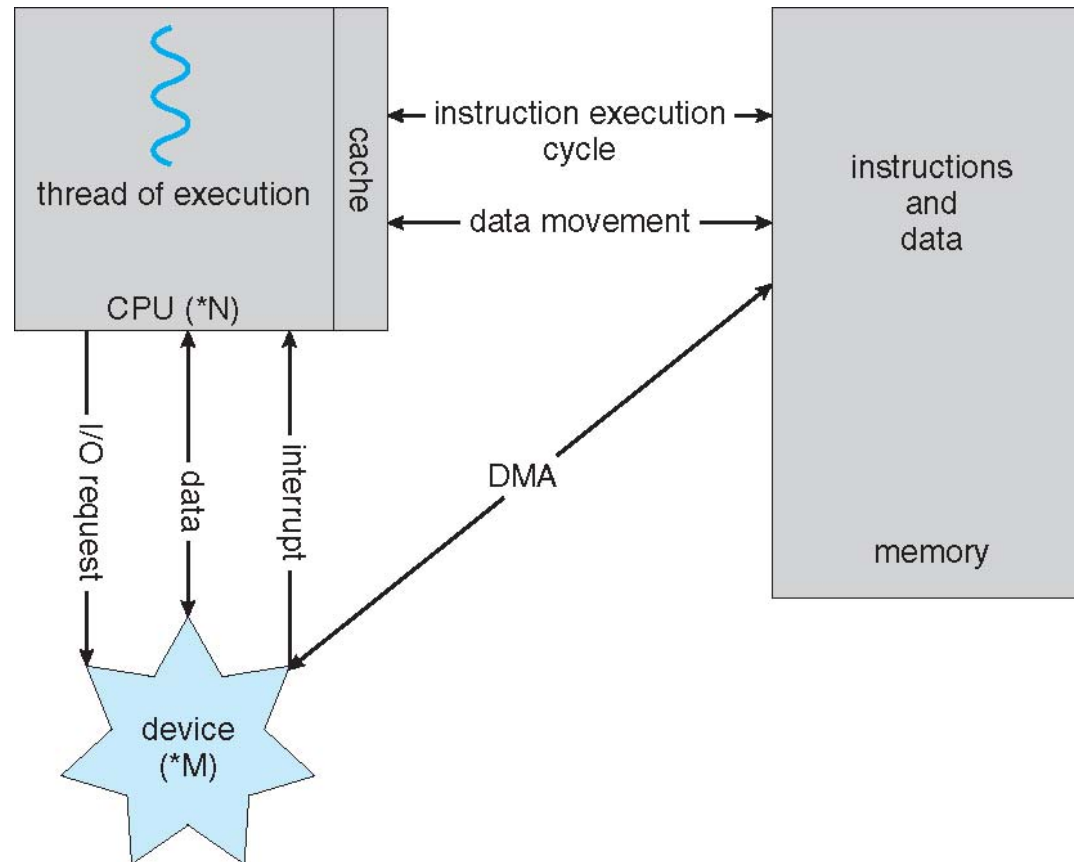


- Channels





How a Modern Computer Works



A von Neumann architecture





Computer-System Architecture

A computer system may be organized in a number of different ways, which we can categorize roughly according to the number of general-purpose processors used.

- Most systems use a single general-purpose processor
 - Almost all systems have other special-purpose processors as well.
- *They may come in the form of device-specific processors*, such as disk, keyboard, and graphics controllers; or, on mainframes, *they may come in the form of more general-purpose processors*, such as I/O processors that move data rapidly among the components of the system.
- All of these special-purpose processors run a limited instruction set and do not run user processes. Sometimes they are managed by the operating system, in that the operating system sends them information about their next task and monitors their status.





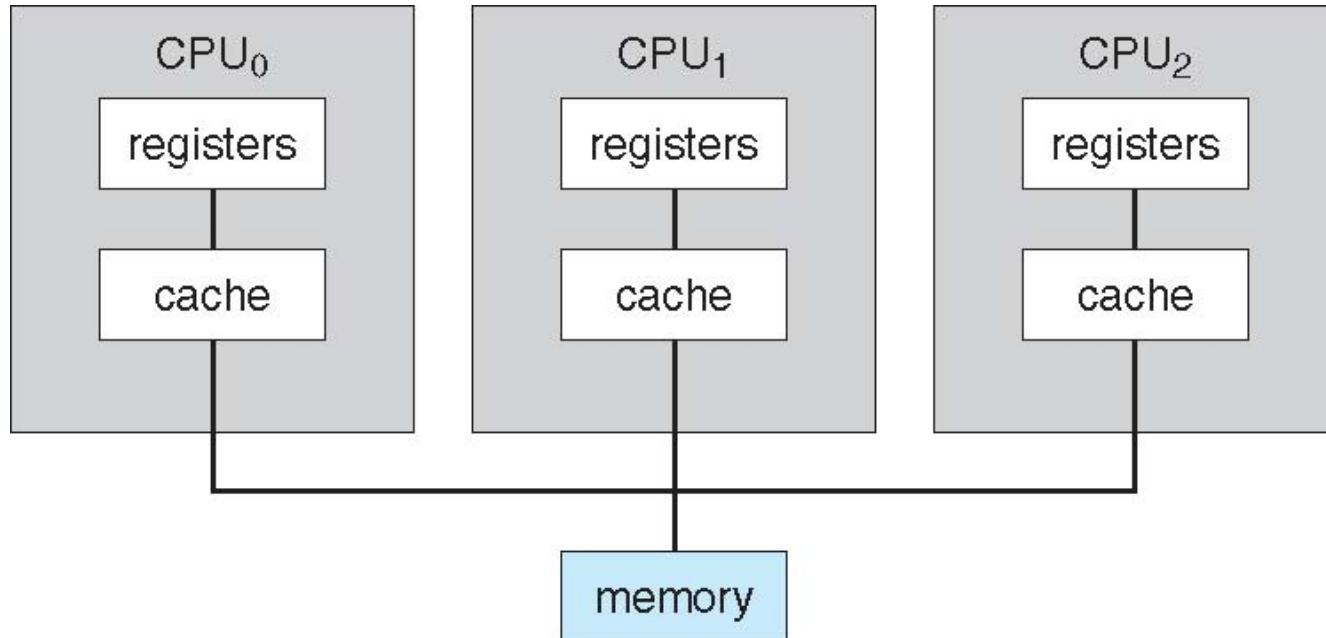
Computer-System Architecture

- **Multiprocessors** systems growing in use and importance
 - Also known as **parallel systems**, **tightly-coupled systems**
 - Such systems have two or more processors in close communication, sharing the computer bus and sometimes the clock, memory, and peripheral devices.
 - Advantages include:
 1. **Increased throughput** more processors => more work done in less time.
 2. **Economy of scale** Multiprocessor systems can cost less than equivalent multiple single-processor systems, because they can share peripherals, mass storage, and power supplies.
 3. **Increased reliability** – graceful degradation or fault tolerance
 - Two types:
 1. **Asymmetric Multiprocessing** – each processor is assigned a specific task.
 2. **Symmetric Multiprocessing** – each processor performs all tasks





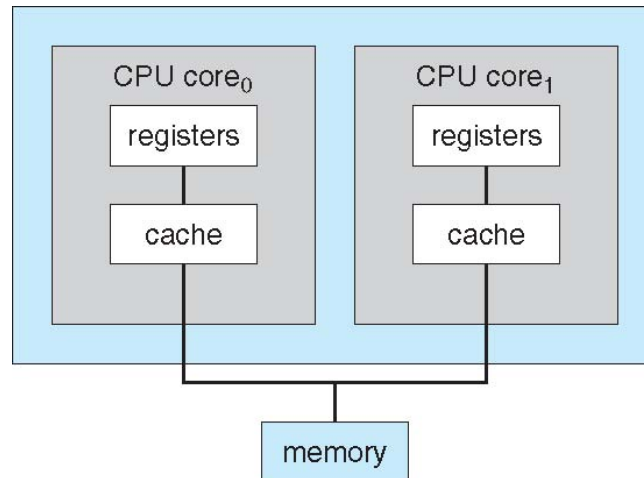
Symmetric Multiprocessing Architecture





A Dual-Core Design

- Multi-chip and **multicore**
- Systems containing all chips
 - Chassis containing multiple separate systems





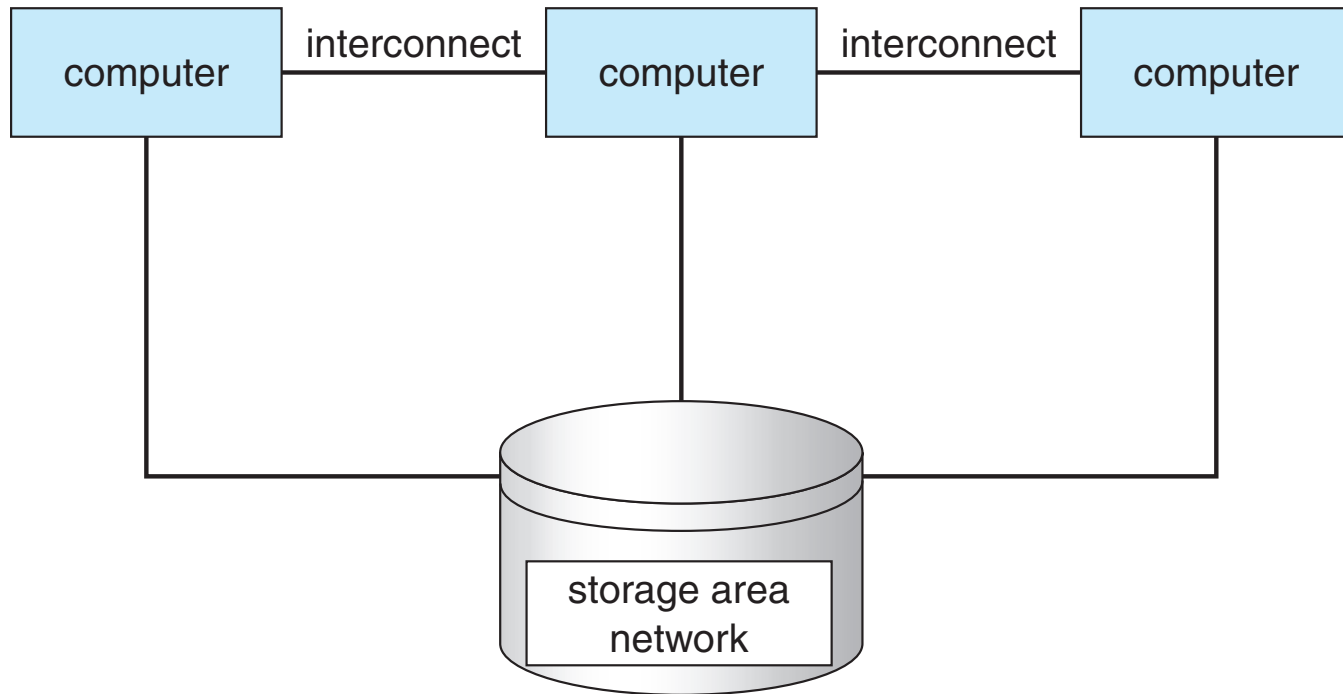
Clustered Systems

- Like multiprocessor systems, but multiple systems working together
 - Usually sharing storage via a **storage-area network (SAN)**
 - Provides a **high-availability** service which survives failures -that is, service will continue even if one or more systems in the cluster fail.-
 - ▶ **Asymmetric clustering** has one machine in hot-standby mode while the other is running the applications. The hot-standby host machine does nothing but monitor the active server. If that server fails, the hot-standby host becomes the active server.
 - ▶ **Symmetric clustering** has multiple nodes - two or more hosts - running applications, monitoring each other. This mode is obviously more efficient, as it uses all of the available hardware. It does require that more than one application be available to run.
 - Some clusters are for **high-performance computing (HPC)**
 - ▶ Applications must be written to use **parallelization**
 - Some clusters have **distributed lock manager (DLM)** technology to avoid conflicting operations





Clustered Systems





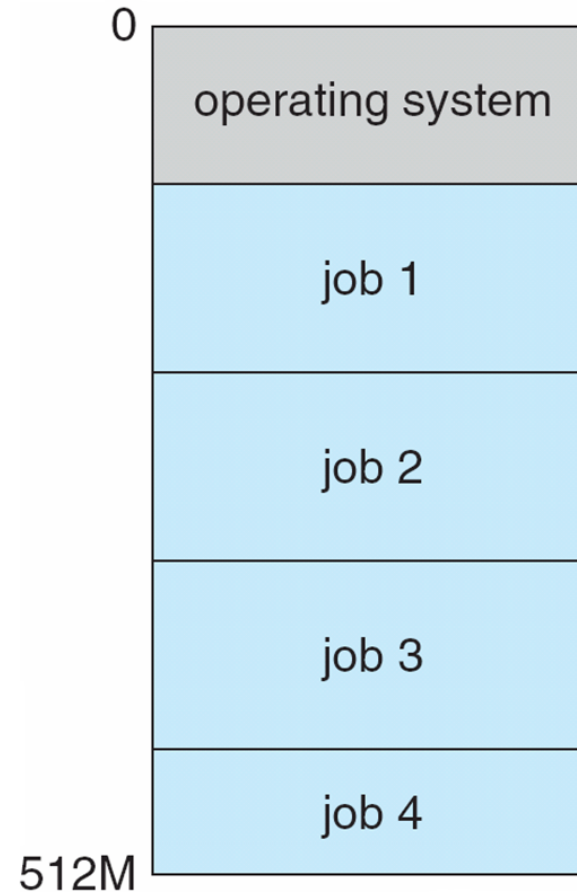
Operating System Structure

- **Multiprogramming (Batch system)** needed for efficiency
 - Single user cannot keep CPU and I/O devices busy at all times
 - Multiprogramming organizes jobs (code and data) so CPU always has one to execute
 - A subset of total jobs in system is kept in memory
 - One job selected and run via **job scheduling**
 - When it has to wait (for I/O for example), OS switches to another job
- **Timesharing (multitasking)** is logical extension in which CPU switches jobs so frequently that users can interact with each job while it is running, creating **interactive** computing
 - **Response time** should be < 1 second
 - Each user has at least one program executing in memory $\Rightarrow$ **process**
 - If several jobs ready to run at the same time $\Rightarrow$ **CPU scheduling**
 - If processes don't fit in memory, **swapping** moves them in and out of main memory to the disk to run
 - **Virtual memory** allows execution of processes not completely in memory





Memory Layout for Multiprogrammed System





Operating-System Operations

- **Interrupt driven** (hardware and software)
 - Hardware interrupt by one of the devices
 - Software interrupt (**exception** or **trap**):
 - ▶ Software error (e.g., division by zero or invalid memory access)
 - ▶ Request from user program for operating system service
 - ▶ Other process problems include infinite loop, processes modifying each other or the operating system





Operating-System Operations (cont.)

In order to ensure the proper execution of the operating system, we must be able to distinguish between the execution of operating-system code and user- defined code.

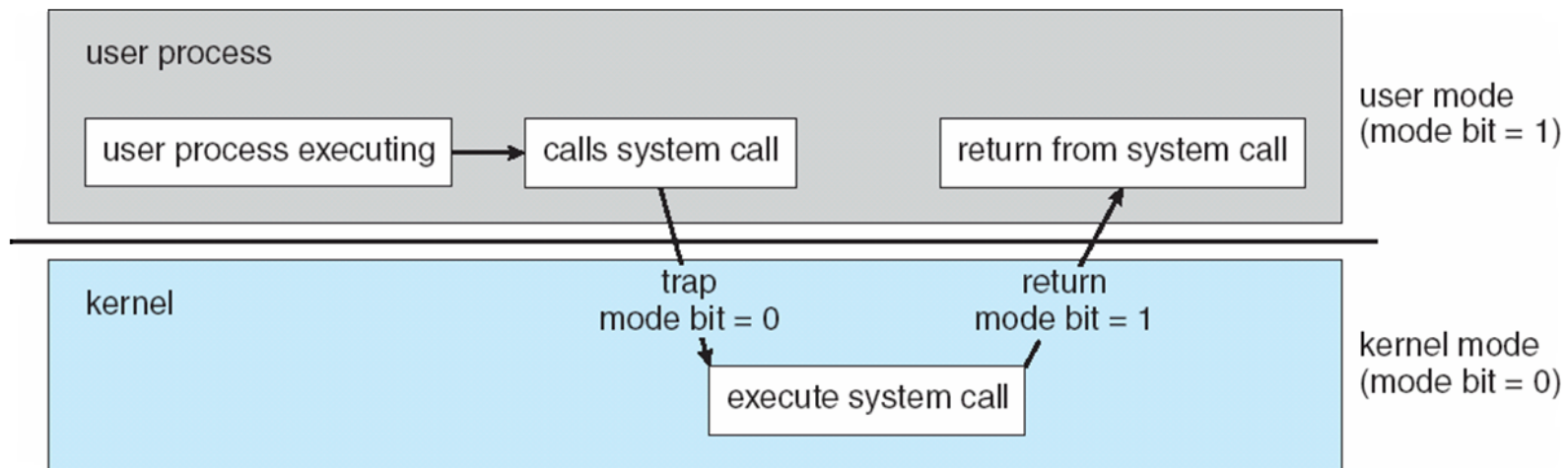
- **Dual-mode** operation allows OS to protect itself and other system components
 - **User mode** and **kernel mode** (also called **supervisor mode**, **system mode**, or **privileged mode**)
 - **Mode bit** is added to the hardware of the computer to indicate the current mode: kernel (0) or user (1).
 - ▶ Provides ability to distinguish when system is running user code or kernel code
 - ▶ Some instructions designated as **privileged**, only executable in kernel mode
 - ▶ System call changes mode to kernel, return from call resets it to user





Transition from User to Kernel Mode

- Timer to prevent infinite loop / process hogging resources
 - Timer is set to interrupt the computer after some time period
 - Keep a counter that is decremented by the physical clock.
 - Operating system set the counter (privileged instruction)
 - When counter zero generate an interrupt
 - Set up before scheduling process to regain control to OS or terminate program that exceeds allotted time





Process Management

- A process is a program in execution. It is a unit of work within the system. Program is a ***passive entity***, process is an ***active entity***.
- Process needs resources to accomplish its task
 - CPU, memory, I/O, files
 - Initialization data
- Process termination requires reclaim of any reusable resources
- Single-threaded process has one **program counter** specifying location of next instruction to execute
 - Process executes instructions sequentially, one at a time, until completion
- Multi-threaded process has one program counter per thread
- Typically system has many processes, some user, some operating system running concurrently on one or more CPUs
 - Concurrency by multiplexing the CPUs among the processes / threads





Process Management Activities

The operating system is responsible for the following activities in connection with process management:

- Creating and deleting both user and system processes
- Suspending and resuming processes
- Providing mechanisms for process synchronization
- Providing mechanisms for process communication
- Providing mechanisms for deadlock handling





Memory Management

- To execute a program all (or part) of the instructions must be in memory
- All (or part) of the data that is needed by the program must be in memory.
- Memory management determines what is in memory and when
 - Optimizing CPU utilization and computer response to users
- Memory management activities
 - Keeping track of which parts of memory are currently being used and by whom
 - Deciding which processes (or parts thereof) and data to move into and out of memory
 - Allocating and deallocating memory space as needed





Storage Management

- OS provides uniform, logical view of information storage
 - Abstracts physical properties to logical storage unit - **file**
 - Each medium is controlled by device (i.e., disk drive, tape drive)
 - ▶ Varying properties include access speed, capacity, data-transfer rate, access method (sequential or random)
- File-System management
 - Files usually organized into directories
 - Access control on most systems to determine who can access what
 - OS activities include
 - ▶ Creating and deleting files and directories
 - ▶ Primitives to manipulate files and directories
 - ▶ Mapping files onto secondary storage
 - ▶ Backup files onto stable (non-volatile) storage media





Mass-Storage Management

- Usually disks used to store data that does not fit in main memory or data that must be kept for a “long” period of time
- Proper management is of central importance
- Entire speed of computer operation hinges on disk subsystem and its algorithms
- OS activities
 - Free-space management
 - Storage allocation
 - Disk scheduling
- Some storage need not be fast
 - Tertiary storage includes optical storage, magnetic tape
 - Still must be managed – by OS or applications
 - Varies between WORM (write-once, read-many-times) and RW (read-write)





Performance of Various Levels of Storage

Level	1	2	3	4	5
Name	registers	cache	main memory	solid state disk	magnetic disk
Typical size	< 1 KB	< 16MB	< 64GB	< 1 TB	< 10 TB
Implementation technology	custom memory with multiple ports CMOS	on-chip or off-chip CMOS SRAM	CMOS SRAM	flash memory	magnetic disk
Access time (ns)	0.25 - 0.5	0.5 - 25	80 - 250	25,000 - 50,000	5,000,000
Bandwidth (MB/sec)	20,000 - 100,000	5,000 - 10,000	1,000 - 5,000	500	20 - 150
Managed by	compiler	hardware	operating system	operating system	operating system
Backed by	cache	main memory	disk	disk	disk or tape

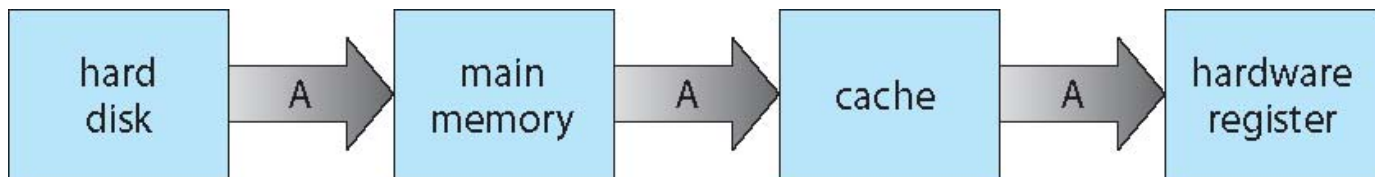
Movement between levels of storage hierarchy can be explicit or implicit





Migration of data “A” from Disk to Register

- Multitasking environments must be careful to use most recent value, no matter where it is stored in the storage hierarchy



- Multiprocessor environment must provide **cache coherency** in hardware such that all CPUs have the most recent value in their cache
- Distributed environment situation even more complex
 - Several copies of a datum can exist
 - Various solutions covered in Chapter 17





I/O Subsystem

- One purpose of OS is to hide peculiarities of hardware devices from the user
- I/O subsystem responsible for
 - Memory management of I/O including buffering (storing data temporarily while it is being transferred), caching (storing parts of data in faster storage for performance), spooling (the overlapping of output of one job with input of other jobs)
 - General device-driver interface
 - Drivers for specific hardware devices





Protection and Security

- **Protection** – any mechanism for controlling access of processes or users to resources defined by the OS
- **Security** – defense of the system against internal and external attacks
 - Huge range, including denial-of-service, worms, viruses, identity theft, theft of service
- Systems generally first distinguish among users, to determine who can do what
 - User identities (**user IDs**, security IDs) include name and associated number, one per user
 - User ID then associated with all files, processes of that user to determine access control
 - Group identifier (**group ID**) allows set of users to be defined and controls managed, then also associated with each process, file
 - **Privilege escalation** allows user to change to effective ID with more rights

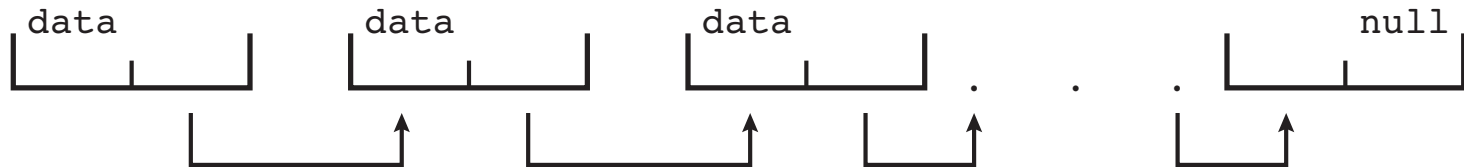




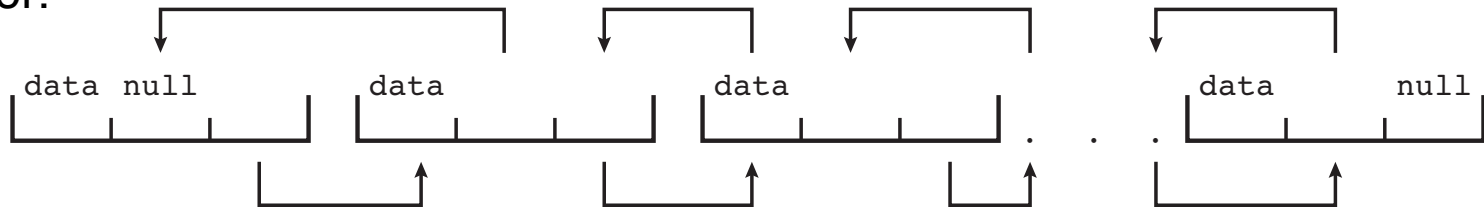
Kernel Data Structures

- Many similar to standard programming data structures
- Linked Lists types:

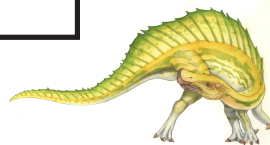
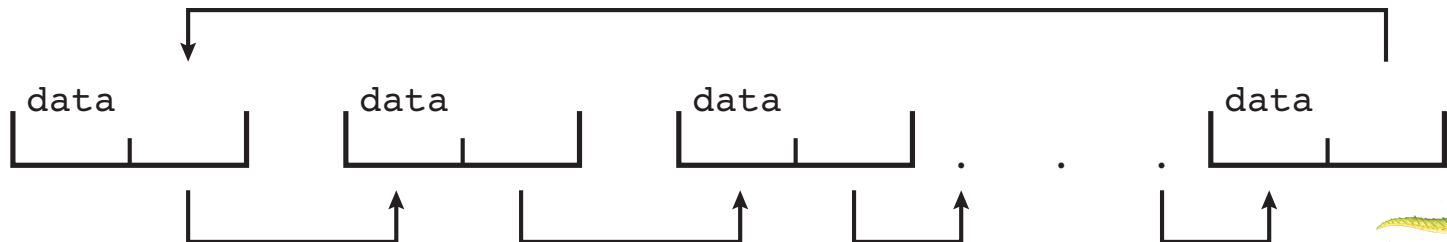
-Singly linked list each item points to its successor



-Doubly linked list a given item can refer either to its predecessor or to its successor.



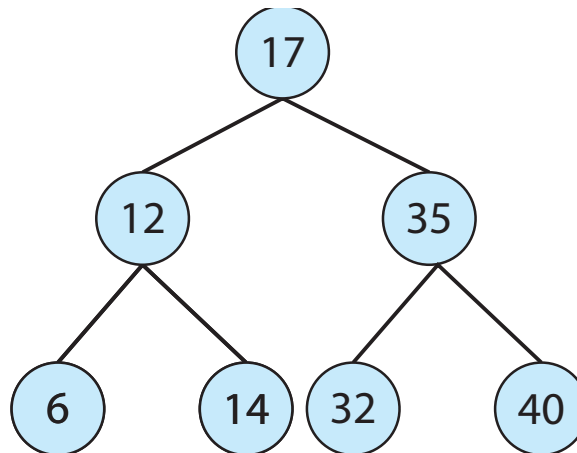
-Circular linked list the last element in the list refers to the first element, rather than to null,





Kernel Data Structures

- **Binary search tree** requires an ordering between the parent's two children
left $\leq$ right
 - Search performance is $O(n)$
 - **Balanced binary search tree** is $O(\lg n)$



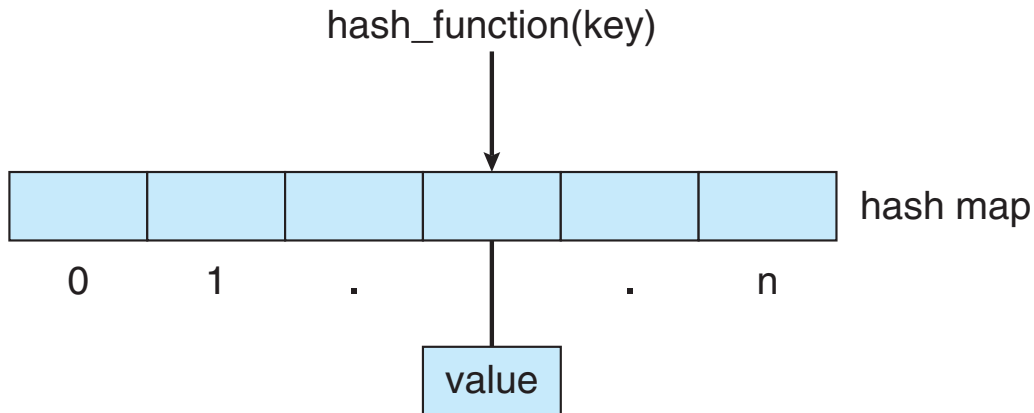
Linux uses a balanced binary search tree as part its CPU-scheduling algorithm.





Kernel Data Structures

- **Hash function** can create a **hash map**



- **Bitmap** – string of n binary digits representing the status of n items
- Linux data structures defined in
include files `<linux/list.h>`, `<linux/kfifo.h>`,
`<linux/rbtree.h>`





Computing Environments

So far, we have provided an overview of computer-system organization and major operating-system components. We conclude with a brief overview of how these are used in a variety of computing environments.





Computing Environments - Traditional

- They are Stand-alone general purpose machines
- As computing has matured, the lines separating many of the traditional computing environments are blurring. [1]
- Companies establish **Portals**, which provide Web accessibility to their internal servers.
- **Network computers** (**thin clients**) which are essentially terminals that understand web-based computing — are used in place of traditional workstations where more security or easier maintenance is desired.
- Mobile computers PDAs interconnect via **wireless networks** to use the company's web portal (as well as the myriad other web resources).
- Networking becoming ubiquitous — even home systems use **firewalls** to protect home computers from Internet attacks





Computing Environments - Mobile

- Handheld smartphones, tablets, etc
- What is the functional difference between them and a “traditional” laptop?
- Extra feature – more OS features (GPS, gyroscope)
- Allows new types of apps like ***augmented reality***
- Use IEEE 802.11 wireless, or cellular data networks for connectivity
- Leaders are **Apple iOS** and **Google Android**





Computing Environments – Distributed

■ Distributed computing:

- Collection of separate, possibly heterogeneous, systems networked together
 - ▶ **Network** is a communications path between two or more systems.
 - ▶ Networks vary by the protocols used, the distances between nodes, and the transport media. **TCP/IP** is the most common network protocol.
 - ▶ Based on the distances between their nodes:
 - **Local Area Network (LAN)**
 - **Wide Area Network (WAN)**
 - **Metropolitan Area Network (MAN)**
 - **Personal Area Network (PAN)**
- **Network Operating System** provides features between systems across network
 - ▶ Communication scheme allows systems to exchange messages
 - ▶ Illusion of a single system:
 - The different operating systems communicate closely enough to provide the illusion that only a single operating system controls the network.-





Computing Environments – Client-Server

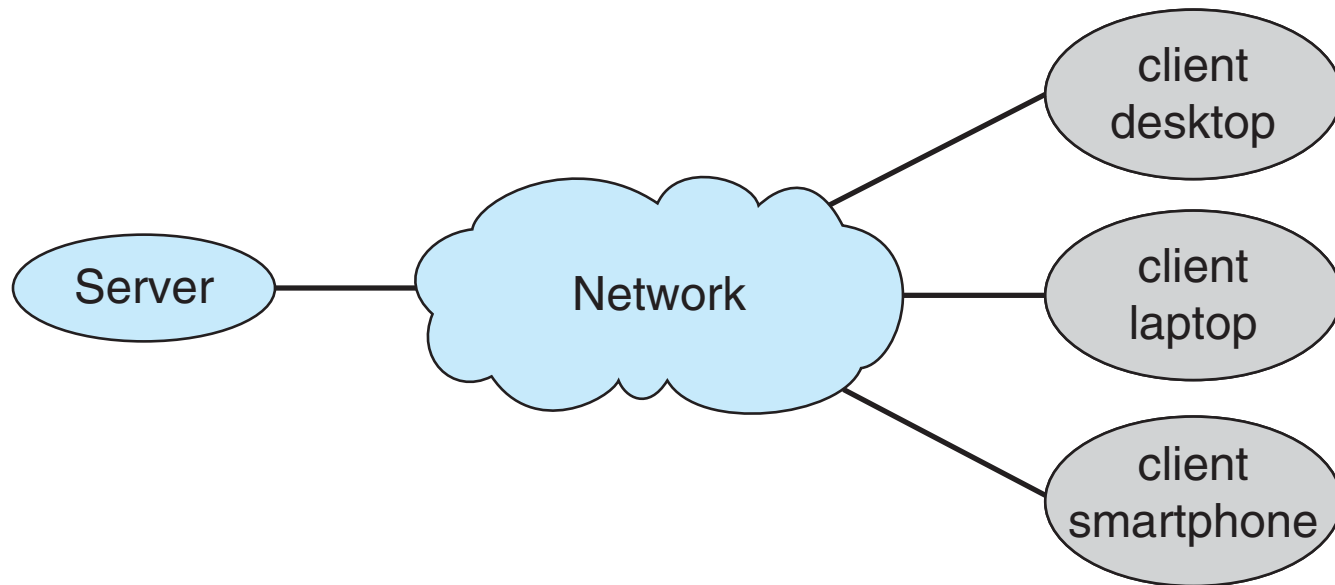
■ Client-Server Computing

- Dumb terminals supplanted by smart PCs: (they become faster, more powerful, and cheaper).
- As a result, many of today's systems act as **server systems** to satisfy requests generated by client systems.
- This form of specialized distributed system, called **client-server system**, has the structure shown in next slide.
- Server systems can be broadly categorized as:
 - ▶ **Compute-server system** provides an interface to which a client can send a request to perform an action (for example, read data). In response, the server executes the action and sends the results to the client. A server running a database that responds to client requests for data is an example of such a system.
 - ▶ **File-server system** provides a file-system interface where clients can create, update, read, and delete files. An example of such a system is a web server that delivers files to clients running web browsers. [1]





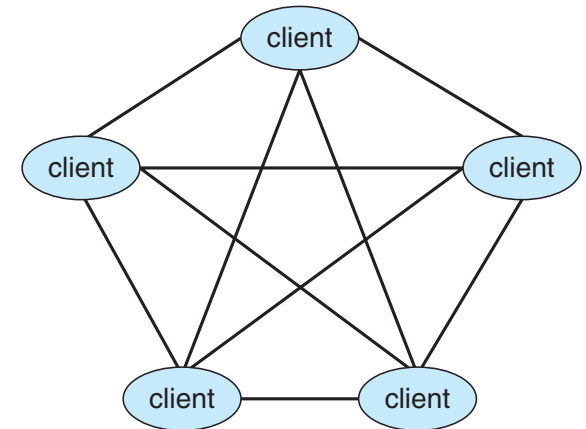
Computing Environments – Client-Server





Computing Environments - Peer-to-Peer

- Another model of distributed system
- P2P does not distinguish clients and servers
 - Instead all nodes are considered peers
 - May each act as client, server or both
 - Node must join P2P network
 - ▶ Registers its service with central lookup service on network, or
 - ▶ Broadcast request for service and respond to requests for service via ***discovery protocol***
 - Examples include Napster and Gnutella systems, **Voice over IP (VoIP)** such as Skype





Computing Environments - Virtualization

- **Virtualization** is a technology that allows operating systems to run as applications within other operating systems.
 - It's Vast and growing industry.
- Virtualization is one member of a class of software that also includes emulation:
- **Emulation** used when source CPU type different from target type (i.e. PowerPC to Intel x86)
 - - when Apple switched from the IBM Power CPU to the Intel x86 CPU for its desktop and laptop computers, it included an emulation facility called “Rosetta,” which allowed applications compiled for the IBM CPU to run on the Intel CPU. That same concept can be extended to allow an entire operating system written for one platform to run on another. -
 - Generally slowest method ^[1]
 - A common example of emulation is when computer language not compiled to native code^[2] – **Interpretation**
- **Virtualization** – OS natively compiled for CPU, running **guest** OSe also natively compiled
 - **VMM** (virtual machine Manager) provides virtualization services





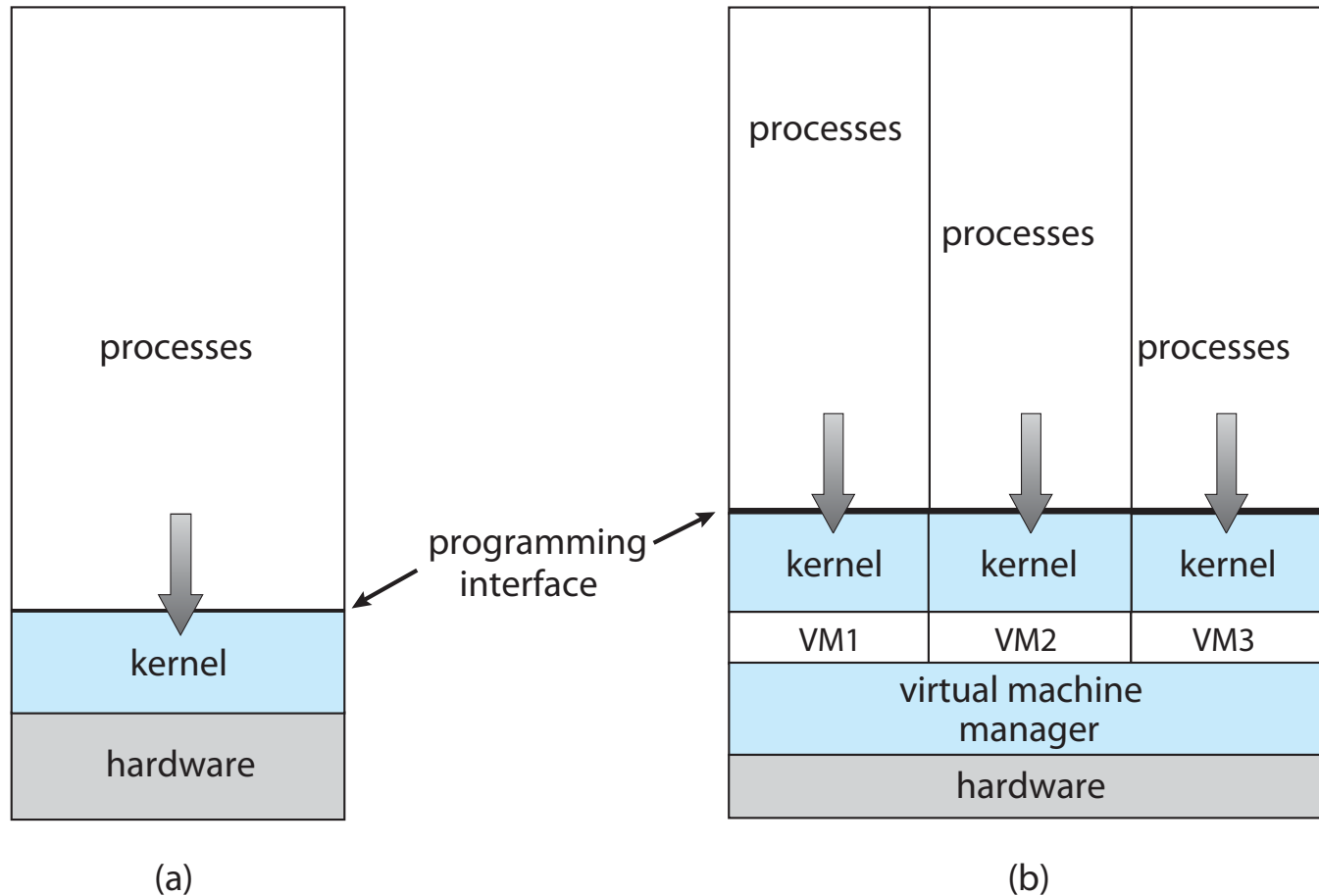
Computing Environments - Virtualization

- Use cases involve laptops and desktops running multiple OSES for exploration or compatibility:
 - Apple laptop running Mac OS X host, Windows as a guest
 - Developing apps for multiple OSES without having multiple systems
 - QA testing applications without having multiple systems





Computing Environments - Virtualization





Computing Environments – Cloud Computing

- **Cloud computing** is a type of computing that delivers computing, storage, and even applications as a service across a network.
- It's a Logical extension of virtualization because it uses virtualization as the base for its functionality.
 - Amazon **EC2** (Elastic Compute Cloud) facility has thousands of servers, millions of virtual machines, of storage available across the Internet, pay based on usage
- Many types of cloud computing:
 - **Public cloud** – available via Internet to anyone willing to pay for services
 - **Private cloud** – run by a company for the company's own use
 - **Hybrid cloud** – includes both public and private cloud components
 - Software as a Service (**SaaS**) – one or more applications available via the Internet (i.e., word processor)
 - Platform as a Service (**PaaS**) – software stack ready for application use via the Internet (i.e., a database server)
 - Infrastructure as a Service (**IaaS**) – servers or storage available over Internet (i.e., storage available for backup use)

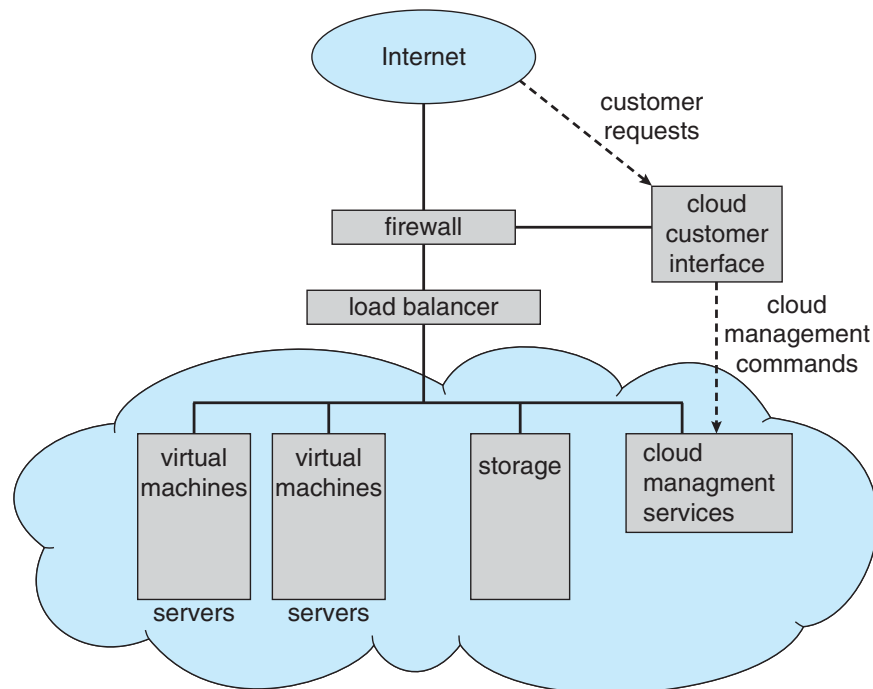




Computing Environments – Cloud Computing

- Cloud computing environments composed of traditional OSES, plus VMMs (Virtual Machine Managers), plus cloud management tools
 - Internet connectivity requires security like firewalls
 - Load balancers spread traffic across multiple applications

This Figure illustrates a public cloud providing IaaS. Notice that both the cloud services and the cloud user interface are protected by a firewall.





Computing Environments – Real-Time Embedded Systems

- Real-time embedded systems most prevalent (Common) form of computers
- They found everywhere, from car engines and manufacturing robots to DVDs and microwave ovens.
 - Vary considerable(Large), special purpose, limited purpose OS, **real-time OS**.
 - Its use is expanding.
- Many other special computing environments as well
 - Some have OSes, some perform tasks without an OS
- Real-time OS has well-defined fixed time constraints
 - Processing ***must*** be done within constraint
 - Correct operation only if constraints met



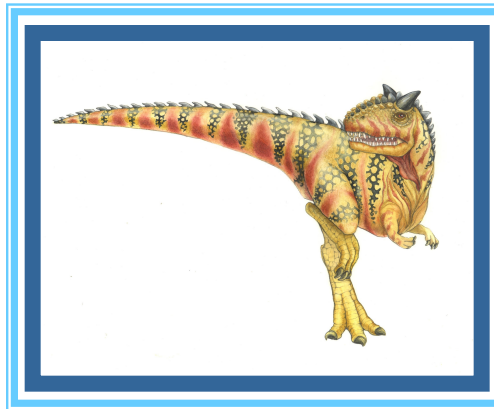


Open-Source Operating Systems

- **Open Source Operating systems** are those made available in **source-code format** rather than just binary **closed-source**.
- Linux is the most famous open source operating system, while Microsoft Windows is a well-known example of the opposite **closed-source** approach. Apple's Mac OS X and iOS operating systems comprise a hybrid approach.



End of Chapter 1





Kingdom of Saudi Arabia
Ministry of Education
Umm AlQura University
Adam University College
Computer Science Department



المملكة العربية السعودية
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by:
T.Mariah Sami Ahmed Khayat
Teacher Assistant @ Adam University College
For Contacting:
mskhayat@uqu.edu.sa

